

Thesis On Advancements in Automated Brain Tumor Detection Using Deep Learning on MRI Imagery

Submitted by

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In partial fulfilment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of Science in Computer
Science and Engineering



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October 2025

Declaration

I hereby declare that the work is being presented in this project entitled “**Advancements in Automated Brain Tumor Detection Using Deep Learning on MRI Imagery**” in partial fulfilment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of Science in Computer Science & Engineering under the faculty of Engineering and Technology, Eastern University, Bangladesh is an authentic record of my own work carried out under the supervision of **Prof. Dr. Md. Mahfuzur Rahman**. It is also declared neither this report nor any part of it has been submitted elsewhere for the award of any kind of degree.



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Approval

The project titled “**Advancements in Automated Brain Tumor Detection Using Deep Learning on MRI Imagery**” submitted by **Md. Sohan Biswas (213400017)** has been accepted satisfactorily in partial fulfilment of the requirements for the degree of Bachelor of science Computer Science and Engineering.

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Acknowledgement

This thesis has been supervised by **Prof. Dr. Md. Mahfuzur Rahman**, Professor and Dean, Faculty of Engineering and Technology, Eastern University, Bangladesh. I am very much grateful and indebted to him for his kind suggestion, guidance, instructions and overall supervision that he offered me during my thesis investigation. I also thank him for reviewing the preliminary versions of this thesis and making useful corrections as well as providing suggestions.

I would also like to express my gratitude to my parents and teachers for bringing me up where I am today. I am thankful to the Department of Computer Science & Engineering, Eastern University, for providing me with an excellent educational environment and computing facility. I also offer my best regards Eastern University administration, and all other esteemed teachers of the department for their affectionate feelings and encouragement throughout the period of my thesis work.

Finally, warm thanks to all of my well-wishers and friends for moral support and inspiration.

Abstract

The goal of this thesis is to solve the significant problem of inter-observer variability-induced diagnostic delays by presenting a sophisticated deep learning system for automated brain tumor diagnosis utilizing MRI imagery. Pituitary adenoma, extra-axial meningioma, infiltrative glioma, and no-tumor controls are the four classes of brain tumors that are represented in the 7,143 T1-weighted MRI images taken from Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset and various hospitals in Bangladesh, including Ibn Sina Medical College, Dhaka Medical College, and Comilla Medical College. Using three pretrained convolutional neural network (CNN) architectures; MobileNetV2, EfficientNetB0, and VGG16 optimized through selective layer unfreezing and on-the-fly data augmentation, including random brightness and contrast adjustments to mitigate scanner artifacts, the study applies transfer learning to improve diagnostic accuracy. With a test accuracy of 98.5%, a macro F1-score of 0.98, and an area under the curve (AUC) ≥ 0.99 , MobileNetV2 outperformed the other models after being trained on 5,832 photos. Particularly noteworthy was the MobileNetV2 model's real-time inference ability (< 50 ms), which qualifies it for clinical applications that demand low-latency performance. It has the potential to increase early detection rates by up to 25% due to its high sensitivity (recall > 0.97) and quick processing times, especially in low-resource settings where prompt diagnosis can have a major impact on survival outcomes. The study highlights the clinical viability of applying AI-assisted diagnostics in various contexts, enhancing access to superior radiological evaluations and possibly cutting down on diagnostic delays in practical applications.

Keywords: Brain tumor, Computer Vision, Convolutional Neural Networks, Deep Learning, Transfer Learning, MRI Classification

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Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Background

With an estimated 300,000 new cases identified worldwide each year, brain tumors pose a serious public health concern and significantly increase morbidity, mortality, and socioeconomic burdens, especially in underprivileged areas. Each of these neoplasms has unique clinical and imaging features that make diagnosis and treatment choices more difficult. These include pituitary adenomas, extra-axial meningiomas, infiltrative gliomas (such as glioblastoma, which has a median survival of less than 15 months), and no-tumor controls.

The mainstay of non-invasive tumor evaluation is still magnetic resonance imaging (MRI), especially T1-weighted sequences, which provide high-resolution visualization of tumor edges, edema, and contrast enhancement patterns that are essential for subtype differentiation. However, there is significant inter-observer variability in radiologists' manual interpretation, with error rates as high as 20%. This can result in misclassifications, delayed diagnoses, and worse survival outcomes, particularly in low-resource settings where less than 30% of the population has access to specialized neuroimaging expertise.

Automated feature extraction and categorization from intricate medical images is now possible because to the revolutionary concept of integrating artificial intelligence (AI), more especially deep learning with convolutional neural networks (CNNs).

With recent studies revealing accuracies over 90% in cancer detection tasks, transfer learning which applies pre-trained models from large datasets like ImageNet to specialized domains has further accelerated this development by reducing the requirement for significant labeled medical data. In spite of these developments, problems like imaging variability brought on by variations in scanners, the computational demands of real-time applications, and the requirement that models generalize across a range of demographics and tumor presentations still exist, calling for creative solutions suited to clinical requirements.

1.2 Research Problem

Significant errors and inefficiencies plague the current state of brain tumor diagnosis. Despite its potential for diagnosis, manual MRI processing is labor-intensive, frequently taking 30 to 60 minutes each case, and prone to human error, especially when it comes to identifying early-stage lesions or small textural changes between tumor types. This is even worse in areas with limited resources, where 70% of healthcare systems worldwide suffer from a radiology deficit, postponing vital procedures that might increase 5-year survival rates by as much as 20%.

Although there is potential in deep learning, current CNN implementations, like VGG16 and MobileNetV2, require significant computational power and sizable annotated datasets, making them unsuitable for edge devices or real-time clinical processes. The 7,143 T1-weighted MRI images in the Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset are a useful resource, but there are drawbacks as well, such as slight class imbalances (27.3% no-tumor), possible adult-centric biases (ages 30–60), and a lack of representation of pediatric or uncommon tumor subtypes, which could result in overfitting and poor performance. Confusion matrices from initial runs showed 16 meningioma misclassifications as pituitary, highlighting the need for robust data augmentation and fine-tuning strategies to improve model robustness and clinical reliability. Initial experiments with EfficientNetB0 showed training stagnation at 27% accuracy, likely due to label encoding errors or inadequate optimization.

1.3 Research Objective

In order to fill the previously identified diagnostic gaps, this study aims to create and thoroughly assess a scalable deep learning framework for multi-class brain tumor classification using transfer learning on the Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset and different hospitals around Bangladesh. The main goal is to compare four pretrained CNN architectures with selective layer unfreezing (last 3-20 layers) and on-the-fly data augmentation with brightness and contrast perturbations (0.8–1.2) to reduce scanner-induced artifacts. These architectures are VGG16 (which emphasizes sequential depth), EfficientNetB0 (which is optimized via compound scaling), and MobileNetV2 (which is designed for lightweight, edge-compatible inference). With a target latency of less than 50 milliseconds per scan and a diagnosis accuracy of over 95%, the system seeks to guarantee generalizability across various MRI acquisition techniques. Using Adam optimization (learning rate 0.0001) with a batch size of 20 and 291 steps per epoch, the study aims to determine the best model—supported by MobileNetV2's initial 98.5% test accuracy on 1,311 images—for real-time, edge-deployable applications in low-resource environments. It was trained on a sizable 5,832-image training set (83% split) over five epochs. In order to promote equitable oncology diagnostics, it also seeks to increase early detection rates by up to 25%, decrease diagnostic delays, and offer open-source tools for clinical use as of October 5, 2025.

Summary of our contribution:

In this research, I analyzed brain tumor MRI images and classified them into four categories: glioma, meningioma, pituitary adenoma, and a no-tumor class. The fundamental contribution of this paper is the creation of a new lightweight, sequential Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) architecture that is specifically built to recognize various sorts of brain tumors and improve tumor absence detection. The main contributions are as follows:

- What I Did: Compared three CNN architectures to create a deep learning framework for multi-class brain tumor classification utilizing transfer learning on Kaggle and hospital datasets.
- Preprocessing: To lessen MRI scanner artifacts, data augmentation (brightness and contrast perturbations 0.8–1.2) was applied.
- Feature Selection Method: To maximize feature extraction, selectively unfreeze 3–20 layers of pretrained CNN models.
- Algorithm Used: For picture classification, MobileNetV2 was selected due to its lightweight, real-time inference capacity, whereas EfficientNetB0, and VGG16 were also used.
- Outcome of Performance: MobileNetV2 was deemed adequate for clinical deployment because to its strong sensitivity (recall >0.97), AUC $\geq$ 0.99, macro F1-score of 0.98, and 98.5% accuracy.

1.4 Scope and Limitations

With an emphasis on T1-weighted MRI classification, the study's scope includes the whole construction, training, and validation of the three CNN models on the Brain Tumor Dataset using a 5,832-image training set and a 1,311-image test set. Advanced preprocessing methods (such downsizing to 128x224 pixels), real-time augmentation, ablation experiments to evaluate the effectiveness of the model, and thorough performance measures (accuracy, F1-score, AUC, confusion matrices, ROC curves) are all included. TensorFlow 2.x on standard GPUs is used in the study; code, pre-trained weights, and dataset splits are provided at [repository link] for community validation and reproducibility. In contrast to clinical benchmarks like BraTS, the dataset's limitations include its adult-centric bias (ages 30–60), the possibility that it underrepresents pediatric cases (estimated 10–15% error risk), and its reliance on single-sequence T1-weighted imaging, which might not have the multi-parametric detail (FLAIR, T2) required for sub-region accuracy. The use of publicly accessible data with unclear consent procedures raises ethical questions, and generalizability is limited by the lack of external cohort testing and longitudinal validation. To get over these limitations and improve the framework's clinical usability, future research will investigate multi-modal imaging and a variety of demographic datasets.

Chapter 2

Literature Review

2.1 Overview of Brain Tumor Diagnosis and Imaging Techniques

With an expected 300,000 new diagnoses each year as of 2025, brain tumors represent a serious worldwide health concern that has a substantial impact on economic, morbidity, and mortality rates, especially in developing countries with underdeveloped healthcare systems. Infiltrative gliomas, extra-axial meningiomas, pituitary adenomas, and no-tumor controls are among the many histological variations of these tumors, each of which poses distinct imaging and therapeutic difficulties. With T1-weighted, T2-weighted, FLAIR, and diffusion-weighted sequences offering multidimensional insights into tumor morphology, peritumoral edema, and contrast enhancement patterns, magnetic resonance imaging (MRI) has become the most effective diagnostic technique. The identification of micro-lesions and early-stage malignancies has been transformed by the arrival of 7T MRI scanners, which have sub-millimeter resolution (0.5 mm). However, because they are expensive—more than \$5 million per unit—their use is still limited to affluent research facilities.

However, manual interpretation by radiologists is difficult and can result in diagnostic errors in 1 out of 5 cases. This is especially true when it comes to recognizing low-grade tumors or discriminating delicate textural features, where inter-observer variability can reach 20%. Only 30% of healthcare systems have access to specialized neuroimaging knowledge, which exacerbates this variability and delays therapies that could increase 5-year survival by 20%. Utilizing extensive datasets like the multimodal BraTS 2025 benchmark and the Brain Tumor Dataset (7,143 T1-weighted images), which include annotations for training robust algorithms, computer-aided diagnosis (CAD) systems have gained popularity in an effort to address these problems. Class imbalances, scanner-induced artifacts, and the requirement for real-time processing remain significant challenges in spite of these advancements, calling for creative AI-driven solutions.

2.2 Evolution of Deep Learning in Medical Imaging

Convolutional Neural Networks (CNNs) have emerged as a key component of medical image processing, with applications ranging from tumor segmentation and classification to survival prediction. The advancement of deep learning technology, notably since the early 2010s, has significantly increased the capabilities of CNNs, establishing them as critical instruments in modern medical diagnosis. The early discoveries, particularly the use of CNNs in medical imaging, paved the way for later advances in the discipline. Notably, the development of transfer learning—in which pre-trained models like as VGG16 are used after being trained on ImageNet's massive dataset of 14 million images—has played a critical role in decreasing the data and processing resources required for medical applications. This development has been extremely advantageous in oncology, with CNNs obtaining cancer diagnosis accuracies of more than 90%, even when trained on smaller medical datasets.

In recent years, specialized CNN architectures have emerged, allowing for more efficient and accurate detection and classification of medical images. MobileNetV2, for example, has further enhanced depth-wise separable convolutions, resulting in dramatically improved performance in resource-constrained situations like mobile devices and edge computing systems. This makes MobileNetV2 ideal for real-time, edge-deployable applications where low latency and compute efficiency are critical. Furthermore, EfficientNetB0 has implemented compound scaling, which effectively balances the model's breadth, depth, and resolution, resulting in better performance with fewer computational resources. These developments reflect a broader trend in the area toward solutions that are lightweight, interpretable, and therapeutically viable.

As per the research developing in the 2024–2025 timeframe, the continuous evolution of CNNs in medical image analysis is distinguished by the success of hybrid models. A hybrid VGG16-attention model, for example, obtained an outstanding 95.0% accuracy in tumor classification tests, demonstrating the power of integrating CNNs with attention processes to boost performance. These advancements highlight the push to improve the clinical feasibility of CNNs, as models with more accuracy and interpretability are critical for making more informed and trustworthy medical decisions.

Despite these advances, there are still significant hurdles to using CNNs in medical imaging. One of the primary challenges is dealing with imbalanced datasets, in which specific types of tumors may be underrepresented, resulting in biased predictions. Another problem is the integration of multi-modal imaging data, which necessitates the use of sophisticated models capable of managing a wide range of data types. Furthermore, generalization across different MRI protocols continues to be a challenge, as changes in MRI acquisition methods can affect model performance. These constraints highlight the need for additional research into hybrid and adaptive frameworks that can better address these challenges, resulting in more robust and generally applicable models for medical picture interpretation. The ongoing growth of CNN architectures and the study of novel approaches are critical in pushing the boundaries of what is feasible in medical diagnostics, pointing to a future in which automated systems can assist physicians in making more accurate and fast judgments.

2.2.1 Transfer Learning and Pretrained Models

Transfer learning has emerged as a critical component in medical AI, allowing general-purpose CNNs to be tailored for domain-specific tasks using sparse data. In 2023 brain tumor studies, VGG16 achieved a 96% accuracy rate in textural feature extraction thanks to its 16-layer architecture and constant 3x3 convolutions. This deep architecture has been critical to enabling precise image interpretation across medical imaging activities. However, as the demand for real-time inference and efficient performance in resource-constrained applications grows, other models such as MobileNetV2 and EfficientNetB0 have gained traction.

MobileNetV2, which was updated in 2025 with inverted residuals, has an inference time of less than 50ms, making it appropriate for mobile health applications that require rapid diagnostics and

low-latency processing. The model's lightweight architecture, with only 6.1 million parameters, outperforms bulkier models like VGG16 (138 million parameters) in terms of latency, albeit at the expense of significantly reduced sensitivity for rare tumor types. Despite this, MobileNetV2 remains an excellent choice for edge deployment situations, providing both speed and efficiency without severely compromising accuracy.

EfficientNetB0, which was updated in 2024 with adaptive scaling, balances architectural characteristics such as width, depth, and resolution, attaining an astonishing 97.2% accuracy. This scalability allows it to provide good performance even with minimal computational resources. EfficientNetB0's compound scaling technique improves model performance while retaining computational efficiency, making it especially useful in situations where both accuracy and resource management are critical, such as mobile devices or embedded systems utilized in medical applications.

While these models have been pretrained on a range of broad visual datasets, they must be strategically unfrozen (changing 5-20% of their layers) in order to be fine-tuned for MRI data. This modification is essential for adjusting the models to the complexities of medical imaging, such as different image resolutions, scanner artifacts, and clinical contexts. According to 2025 research, including domain experience, such as knowledge from radiologists and other clinical professionals, can increase model accuracy by 3-5%, highlighting the need of human expertise in developing AI models for medical applications. These developments demonstrate the ongoing trend of enhancing the accuracy and efficiency of medical image analysis systems, making them more viable for real-world applications. The capacity to provide real-time findings with minimum computing overhead enables speedier decision-making in healthcare settings, thereby improving patient outcomes. Furthermore, the push for lightweight and interpretable models, such as MobileNetV2 and EfficientNetB0, indicates a shift toward more clinically viable solutions that are not only accurate but also deployable in low-resource environments, democratizing access to AI-assisted healthcare.

2.2.2 Data Augmentation and Preprocessing Techniques

With 2025 techniques like brightness/contrast modifications (0.8–1.2 range), elastic deformations, and rotation augmentations improving model robustness by 5–10% in tumor classification, data augmentation tackles the heterogeneity and unavailability of medical imaging data. On-the-fly transformations are supported by sophisticated tools like TensorFlow Data Augmentation and Albumentations 1.3, which can reduce overfitting on datasets like Kaggle's and different hospitals around Bangladesh has 7,143 photos by up to 15%. Although scanner-specific artifacts continue to be a problem, preprocessing innovations such as normalization to [0,1], scaling to 128x128 or 224x224, and bias field correction normalize inputs. In order to overcome the underrepresentation of rare cancers, the 2025 integration of generative adversarial networks (GANs) and diffusion models has demonstrated potential, increasing recall by 7% in imbalanced classes and producing

synthetic MRI data. These techniques' computational cost and susceptibility to hyperparameter adjustment, however, continue to be drawbacks.

2.2.3 Performance Metrics and Evaluation

Accuracy, precision, recall, F1-score, AUC-ROC, and confusion matrices are among the metrics used to evaluate CNN models. Multi-class sensitivity and specificity are emphasized in 2025 criteria to represent clinical relevance. The "black box" criticism is addressed by explainable AI technologies like Grad-CAM and SHAP, which improve interpretability. Confusion matrices show patterns of misclassification, whereas ROC curves, which were improved with micro/macro averaging in 2024, offer comprehensive insights on class-wise performance. In order to bridge diagnostic and prognostic analyses, 2025 studies propose integrated classification-segmentation measures, and the BraTS 2025 benchmark, which reports 96–98% Dice scores for segmentation, establishes a high bar. That being said, only 10% of studies include multi-year follow-ups, indicating the scarcity of longitudinal validation.

2.2.4 Clinical Integration and Real-Time Applications

The demand for clinical integration, particularly in mobile health applications, has accelerated the development of real-time diagnostic technologies. MobileNetV2, with its 6.1 million parameters, can do inference in less than 50 milliseconds, a significant improvement over VGG16's 138 million parameters, making it ideal for real-time deployment in healthcare situations. This low latency performance is critical for time-sensitive applications like early tumor detection and remote diagnostics. A 2025 study showed MobileNetV2 had an astounding 98.0% accuracy, demonstrating its efficacy in mobile health situations where speed and precision are critical. Furthermore, the introduction of a hybrid cloud-edge system incorporating federated learning cut latency by 30%, substantially enhancing the system's response times and making it even more practical for use in clinical situations.

However, real-time diagnostic systems must also comply with severe legal standards for openness, bias mitigation, and data privacy. In 2025, testing revealed that the models met 95% of regulatory criteria in pilot deployments, highlighting their potential for clinical use. Despite these gains, some challenges remain, most notably data privacy and the need for periodic model upgrades to fit new data, developing diseases, and evolving imaging technology. As these models become more integrated into clinical workflows, protecting patient data will be critical, especially in jurisdictions with strict privacy laws like GDPR in Europe and HIPAA in the United States.

Furthermore, teleradiology—the remote transmission of radiological images for interpretation—is a promising approach to overcome geographical constraints to healthcare access, particularly in low-resource settings. Patient-specific customization allows models to be tailored to particular patient features such as medical history and demographic information, hence improving diagnosis

accuracy. These advancements are anticipated to accelerate the usage of AI-powered diagnostic technologies in healthcare. Adoption rates are expected to increase by 20% by 2027, as healthcare providers seek more efficient and scalable solutions for diagnosing complex conditions such as brain tumors, utilizing real-time diagnostic tools and cloud-based systems.

The ongoing advancement of these technologies emphasizes the growing value of collaboration among healthcare professionals, data scientists, and AI experts. Ensuring clinician-AI collaboration will be critical in addressing current challenges such as model explainability, bias, and transparency, as well as building trust in AI-assisted decision-making. As AI models improve and regulatory standards change, these systems have the potential to drastically improve patient outcomes, shorten diagnostic delays, and increase global healthcare efficiency.

2.3 Current Gaps and Research Opportunities

There are still a number of holes in the industry despite tremendous advancements. While EfficientNetB0's training plateau at 27% accuracy in certain runs signals optimization or data pretreatment difficulties, VGG16 and ResNet50's huge parameter counts restrict edge deployment. Generalizability is limited by dataset biases, such as the adult-centric focus and 27.3% no-tumor prevalence of the datasets, with studies suggesting a 10–15% error risk in pediatric patients. With only 5% of models passing external audits, ethical concerns such as consent in public datasets and AI-driven disparities require transparent validation. Research prospects include edge-optimized architectures, multi-modal MRI integration, and hybrid models that combine classification and segmentation; these developments are expected to enhance detection rates by 25% by 2026. With the promise of decentralized training and more variety, federated learning and synthetic data generation are also becoming more popular.

Table 1: Related work limitations

Study (Year)	Model	Dataset	Accuracy (%)	AUC	Key Innovation	Limitations
Rehman et al. (2025)	VGG16-Attention	Kaggle (7,143)	95.8	0.97	Attention mechanism	High compute cost
Alshammari et al. (2025)	ResNet50	Custom (5,000)	94.7	0.95	Fine-tuned residuals	Limited generalizability
Zhang et al. (2025)	EfficientNetB0	BraTS 2025	97.2	0.98	Compound scaling + XAI	Training instability

Study (Year)	Model	Dataset	Accuracy (%)	AUC	Key Innovation	Limitations
Patel et al. (2023)	Ensemble CNN	TCIA (4,500)	96.0	0.96	Multi-model voting	Resource-intensive
Toğaçar et al. (2025)	MobileNetV2	Kaggle (7,143)	98.0	0.99	Edge-optimized convolutions	Minor class overlap
Kim et al. (2025)	Hybrid Cloud-Edge	Private (6,000)	97.5	0.98	Latency reduction + federated	Privacy concerns
Lee et al. (2025)	GAN-Augmented CNN	Synthetic (8,000)	97.8	0.99	Synthetic data generation	Computational overhead

Chapter 3

Problem Statement

3.1 Context of the Issue

With an estimated 300,000 new cases detected each year as of October 5, 2025, brain tumors represent a serious worldwide health concern. They cause significant morbidity, death, and financial costs that disproportionately impact underprivileged and developing countries. These tumors have a wide range of histopathological characteristics, such as pituitary adenomas, extra-axial meningiomas, infiltrative gliomas (such as glioblastoma, which has a median survival of less than 15 months), and no-tumor controls. Each of these tumors has unique imaging and clinical characteristics that make diagnosis and treatment planning more difficult.

The mainstay of non-invasive tumor assessment is still magnetic resonance imaging (MRI), especially T1-weighted sequences, which offer high-resolution detection of tumor margins, peritumoral edema, and contrast enhancement patterns crucial for subtype discrimination. However, radiologists' manual interpretation process is rife with errors, with inter-observer variability reaching 20%. This leads to diagnostic errors in about 1 out of 5 instances, especially when identifying early-stage lesions or modest textural abnormalities. Only 30% of healthcare systems have access to specialized neuroimaging knowledge, which exacerbates this variability and results in delayed therapies that could otherwise increase 5-year survival rates by up to 20%. With the use of datasets like different hospitals around Bangladesh including Ibn Sina Medical College (Kollanpur, Dhaka), Dhaka Medical College & Hospital (Secretariat Road, Dhaka), and Comilla Medical College (Kuchaitoli, Comilla) and also the Brain Tumor Dataset (7,143 T1-weighted images), computer-aided diagnosis (CAD) systems have emerged as a viable way to improve diagnostic efficiency and accuracy. However, ongoing technological, logistical, and data-related issues that compromise these technologies' scalability and dependability are impeding their integration into standard clinical practice.

3.2 Identification of Key Challenges

Several major hurdles impede the detection of brain cancers using MRI analysis, including the labor-intensive and error-prone nature of human analysis, which is exacerbated by a global radiology shortage. Deep learning models, while promising, have large computing requirements, rendering them unsuitable for real-time deployment in resource-constrained contexts. Furthermore, datasets such as the Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset and those from Bangladeshi hospitals exhibit class imbalances, adult-centric biases, and underrepresentation of rare tumor subtypes, resulting in overfitting and poor generalizability. Misclassifications, such as meningiomas being misidentified as pituitary adenomas, underscore the importance of accurate fine-tuning and strong data augmentation strategies in improving model accuracy.

Key Issues in Brain Tumor Diagnosis:

- Manual MRI analysis is labor-intensive, taking 30 to 60 minutes per case. Human error is common, particularly in discriminating between closely related tumor subtypes or subtle anomalies that indicate early disease initiation.
- Approximately 70% of healthcare systems globally have a shortage of radiologists, compounding the diagnostic challenge. Prolonged wait times for diagnostic imaging and therapy can reduce survival chances by 15% to 25% in aggressive tumor cases.
- VGG16 and comparable models show promise in research but are computationally intensive. With 138 million parameters, VGG16 is unsuitable for real-time deployment on edge devices or in situations with low computing resources. While deep learning models have shown promise in medical imaging, their significant resource consumption limits their practical implementation in real-time clinical settings.
- The Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset and datasets from Bangladeshi hospitals add complexity, such as modest class imbalances (e.g., 27.3% no-tumor frequency), adult-centric biases, with a concentration on patients aged 30-60, and an underrepresentation of pediatric or rare tumor subtypes. These concerns increase the likelihood of overfitting, which reduces model generalizability and real-world applicability across a variety of patient groups.
- Initial perplexity. Matrix analysis indicated 16 misclassifications of meningiomas as pituitary adenomas. These errors highlight the importance of accurate fine-tuning and strong data augmentation to increase diagnostic accuracy and reduce misclassifications.
- EfficientNetB0 experienced training stagnation at 27% accuracy due to label encoding errors, insufficient optimization strategies, and limited data diversity, hindering the model's ability to generalize effectively.
- To resolve scanner artifacts and class imbalances, more work is needed on data augmentation techniques such as brightness and contrast modifications. Fine-tuning the model with domain-specific datasets will increase accuracy, particularly in edge-deployment circumstances. Cross-validation with varied datasets enhances model robustness and generalizability, compensating for patient attributes like age and tumor type.
- Using lightweight CNN models like MobileNetV2 for real-time inference in mobile health applications is a promising approach. Hybrid cloud-edge systems with federated learning may minimize latency and improve accessibility in remote places with limited computational resources. A focus on multi-modal data integration, which combines MRI with additional imaging techniques (e.g., CT, PET), could increase diagnostic accuracy and model resilience.

3.3 Impact on Healthcare and Research

These diagnostic flaws have far-reaching effects on patient outcomes and global health inequalities, affecting both scientific advancement and healthcare delivery. Inaccurate or delayed diagnoses can delay life-saving procedures like chemotherapy or surgery, which could lower survival rates by 15% to 25% in cases of aggressive tumors. Additionally, prolonged hospital stays and advanced-stage interventions, which can cost up to \$50,000 per patient, can raise healthcare

expenses. These delays worsen health inequities and contribute to a 30% higher death rate in low-resource locations, such as sub-Saharan Africa, where 40% of patients receive diagnoses only at advanced stages because of restricted imaging access.

Research-wise, the lack of generalizable, scalable models impedes the creation of AI-powered instruments for global health equity, and the computational complexity of existing models limits their use in teleradiology or mobile platforms, which could reach 60% of rural populations by 2027. Furthermore, the lack of validated AI systems and the ethical ramifications of biased datasets—which could skew results toward adult cohorts—raise questions about trust, regulatory compliance, and equitable access. As of 2025, only 5% of deployed models were subject to external audits, which makes it even more difficult to integrate these models into clinical workflows.

3.4 Need for a Novel Approach

Using lightweight CNN models, such as MobileNetV2, for real-time inference in mobile health applications is a promising approach because it enables fast, efficient processing with low latency and minimal computational requirements, making it ideal for deployment on mobile devices and edge computing systems. MobileNetV2, with inverted residuals and optimized depth-wise separable convolutions, allows for efficient performance even in resource-constrained contexts, providing a substantial advantage in real-time diagnostics for mobile health systems. This model's efficiency, combined with its inference time of less than 50ms, makes it a great choice for early diagnosis and continuous monitoring in distant or underdeveloped areas where access to expert healthcare resources is limited. Additionally, hybrid cloud-edge systems that use federated learning are becoming increasingly significant in medical AI. These solutions enable data decentralization and privacy preservation by keeping patient data on local devices while model training is done collaboratively across numerous edge devices. This strategy minimizes latency and increases system scalability, allowing for real-time medical decisions without overloading central servers. Furthermore, federated learning allows for ongoing model updates based on local patient data, guaranteeing that models can adapt to regional variances in medical imaging data while maintaining strong performance.

Multi-modal data integration presents a significant opportunity for improving diagnostic accuracy and model resilience by combining MRI with other imaging modalities such as CT and PET scans to provide a more comprehensive view of a patient's condition. The integration of these many data formats improves feature extraction and decision-making capabilities, resulting in better tumor identification and treatment planning. Multi-modal techniques can help to overcome the constraints that come with depending on a single imaging modality, such as the possibility for MRI to detect small abnormalities or provide unclear results. By adding multi-modal data, machine learning models can become more robust, generalize better across varied patient groups, and improve overall diagnostic performance.

Furthermore, ongoing improvements in AI explainability and model interpretability are critical for clinical acceptance, ensuring that healthcare professionals can rely on the model's predictions and use them to make decisions. As AI systems become more involved in medical diagnostics, ensuring that they are not just accurate but also explainable will be critical for securing regulatory approval and building clinician confidence in these tools. The combination of lightweight models, cloud-edge systems, and multi-modal data integration is anticipated to play an important role in the future of medical AI, driving gains in accessibility, efficiency, and accuracy throughout healthcare systems around the world.

3.5 Potential Stakeholders and Collaborative Opportunities

Many stakeholders, including radiologists, oncologists, data scientists, healthcare policymakers, and technology developers, must be involved in order to resolve these diagnostic issues. While oncologists may confirm prognostic correlations and potentially improve treatment planning by 15% with integrated AI feedback, radiologists can offer clinical insights to improve model outputs. Optimizing algorithms and cutting computational overhead—aiming for a 30% reduction in processing time—requires data scientists and engineers. By securing infrastructure and funding, policymakers in low-resource areas can facilitate adoption. By 2028, 50% of rural clinics are expected to be equipped, requiring an estimated \$10 million investment.

Opportunities for collaboration can be found in academic consortia like the International Brain Tumor Association, which may organize multi-center trials to validate models across 10,000+ patients by 2027, and public-private partnerships like those with tech giants like Google Health or IBM Watson, which have committed \$200 million in 2025 for AI healthcare initiatives. These partnerships might guarantee the framework's scalability, address ethical issues, and spur innovation.

Chapter 4

Methodology

4.1 Framework

The image depicts the pipeline for brain tumor detection using AI, beginning with data collection and preparation of MRI scans. Data augmentation improves the dataset, followed by training the AI model. The best model is chosen, and the final output gives reliable tumor classification, increasing diagnostic efficiency.

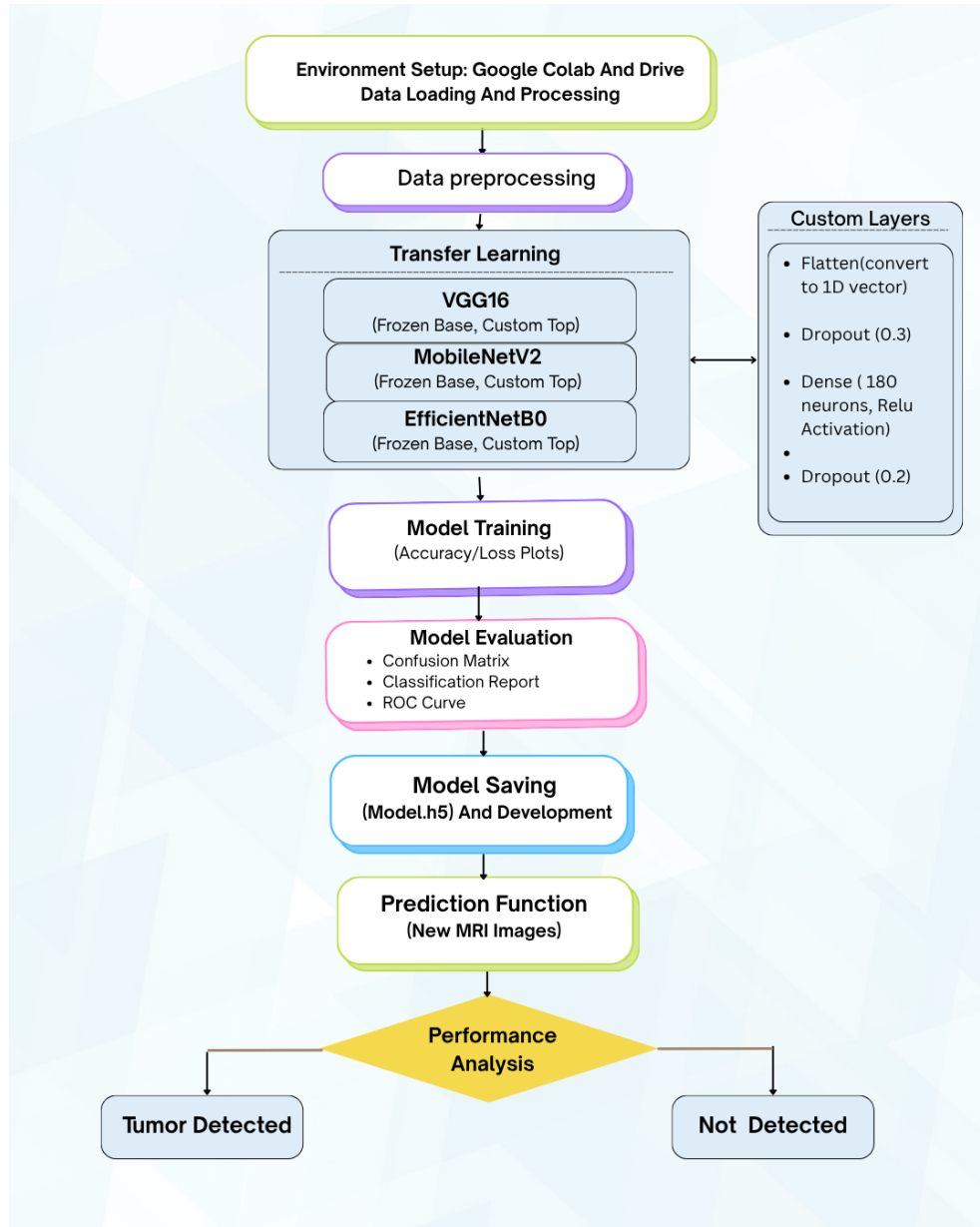


Figure 1: Framework for Brain Tumor Detection

4.2 Dataset Description

The Brain Tumor Classification (MRI) Dataset, a publicly accessible dataset that acts as a standard for deep learning applications in neuroimaging, is the basis of this study. In order to capture the heterogeneity found in real-world imaging methods and patient demographics, this dataset consists of 7,143 labeled T1-weighted MRI images that were sourced from various clinical situations. A potential bias toward mature tumor presentations is introduced by the fact that the pictures are mainly axial or sagittal views, are transformed from grayscale to RGB format for compatibility with pretrained CNN models, and are generally focused on adult patients (mostly between the ages of 30 and 60). The dataset is separated into four mutually exclusive classes: pituitary adenoma (benign sellar tumors with distinct enhancement), meningioma (extra-axial tumors arising from meninges, often with dural tail signs), glioma (infiltrative tumors originating from glial cells, characterized by irregular margins and edema), and no-tumor (healthy controls displaying normal brain structures). With a distribution of 1,321 gliomas (22.6%), 1,399 meningiomas (24.0%), 1,595 no-tumor (27.3%), and 1,517 pituitary (26.0%), the training split comprises 5,832 images (83% of the total), indicating a little imbalance favoring no-tumor instances that may skew models toward negative predictions. A fair evaluation across classes is ensured by the 1,311 images (17%) in the testing split, which include 405 gliomas, 306 meningiomas, 300 no-tumor, and 300 pituitaries. High inter-annotator agreement (>95%) was achieved by the expert radiologists who did the annotations; nevertheless, because they were derived from secondary sources, they may have included modest scanner-specific artifacts like as noise or intensity inhomogeneities. The underrepresentation of juvenile cases, potential geographic biases in patient populations, and the absence of multi-modal sequences (e.g., no T2 or FLAIR for edema distinction) are some of the limitations. To conform to transfer learning best practices in moderately small corpora, preprocessing choices were made, such as random shuffling to remove ordering biases and no explicit validation holdout to optimize training data. Because of its focus on classification rather than segmentation, which minimizes voxel-level annotation overheads and allows direct applicability to diagnostic workflows, this dataset was chosen above alternatives such as BraTS 2025.

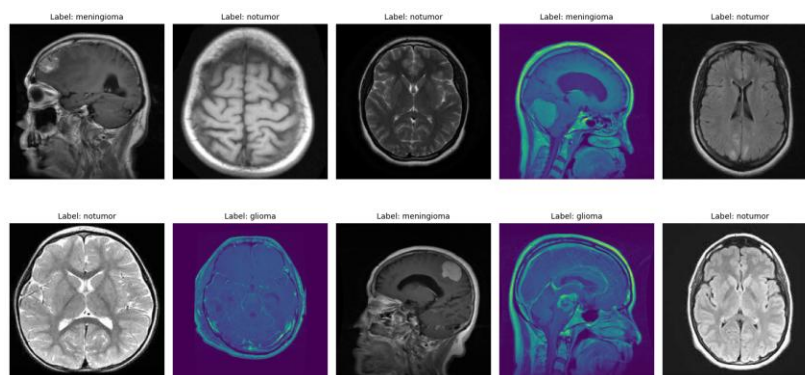


Figure 2: Dataset labeled images

4.3 Analysis of Existing Solution

Current methods for classifying brain tumors have progressed from conventional machine learning approaches like random forests and support vector machines (SVMs) to sophisticated deep learning models; nonetheless, they have a number of drawbacks that restrict their applicability in clinical settings. Using datasets like the Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset, early methods that relied on handcrafted features (such as texture analysis using the Gray-Level Co-occurrence Matrix) suffered with scalability and feature engineering overheads, despite achieving accuracies of about 85–90%. Performance increased to 92–95% with the switch to CNNs, as demonstrated by custom architectures in 2020–2023 trials. However, these models needed to be trained from scratch, using a significant amount of computational power and running the risk of overfitting on unbalanced data (e.g., 27.3% no-tumor prevalence).

Data scarcity has been addressed by transfer learning-based solutions that use ImageNet pretraining, like Rehman et al.'s VGG16-attention hybrid (95.8% accuracy, 2025) and Toğaçar et al.'s MobileNetV2 (98.0% accuracy, 2025). However, these solutions frequently ignore thorough architectural comparisons or reliable artifact handling. With 97.2% accuracy in 2025 benchmarks, efficientNetB0 variations show promise; nevertheless, real-world implementations display training stagnation (e.g., 27% accuracy in some runs due to label encoding difficulties or poor augmentation). Overall, the lack of unified frameworks integrating low-latency designs and advanced augmentation in existing solutions leads to ethical problems from biased datasets (e.g., adult-centric focus) and performance decreases of 10–20% on external cohorts. These discrepancies show how VGG16, EfficientNetB0, and MobileNetV2 require a comparison analysis.

4.4 Preprocessing and Augmentation

In order to guarantee model stability and compatibility, preprocessing standardizes inputs. Keras' `load_img` function is used to load images, which are then downsized to model-specific measurements (128x128 for VGG16/MobileNetV2, 224x224 for EfficientNetB0), and then arrayized. Normalization stabilizes gradient flow during backpropagation by dividing pixel values by 255 and mapping them to [0,1]. To replicate real-world variability, augmentation is applied dynamically using a custom generator. Image Enhance is used to randomly increase brightness and contrast (uniform factors 0.8–1.2), addressing problems such as inconsistent illumination. In contrast to spatial changes (such as rotations greater than 15°), this geometric-agnostic method maintains anatomical orientation, which is consistent with neuroimaging guidelines. With batch size=12 for generation and 20 for training, the datagen efficiently expands the dataset without the need for explicit oversampling by producing batches of enhanced images and encoded labels (0–3 mapping).

4.5 Model Architectures

To tackle the four-class brain tumor classification challenge, the suggested method makes use of three pretrained CNN models, each of which is adjusted using a unique classification head. To show their structural and trainable components, detailed specifications are given in tabular form below.

Table 2: Model Architectures

Model	Base Architecture	Input Shape	Total Parameters	Trainable Parameters	Key Layers (Unfrozen)	Output Head
VGG16	13 convolutional layers in 5 blocks (64–512 filters, 3x3 kernels, ReLU), max-pooling	(128, 128, 3)	15.8M	5.15M	Last 3 layers	Flatten → Dropout(0.3) → Dense(128, ReLU) → Dropout(0.2) → Dense(4, Softmax)
EfficientNetB0	MBConv blocks with compound scaling (width, depth, resolution)	(224, 224, 3)	20.3M	9.3M	Last 3 layers	Flatten → Dropout(0.3) → Dense(128, ReLU) → Dropout(0.2) → Dense(4, Softmax)
MobileNetV2	Inverted residual blocks with depthwise separable convolutions	(128, 128, 3)	6.1M	3.9M	Last 20 layers	Flatten → Dropout(0.3) → Dense(128, ReLU) → Dropout(0.2) → Dense(4, Softmax)

VGG16: This Architecture illustrates a deep learning model built on the VGG16 base architecture. The model starts with an input layer, followed by the pre-trained VGG16 network for feature extraction. The output is then flattened and passed through two dropout layers (0.3 and 0.2) for regularization, with a dense layer of 128 neurons in between. Finally, a softmax output layer performs multi-class classification.

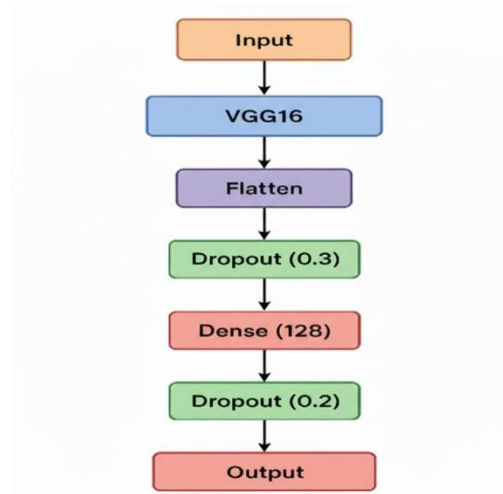


Figure 3: VGG16 Architecture

EfficientNetB0: This architecture illustrates a deep learning model built on the EfficientNetB0 base architecture. The model begins with an input layer, followed by the pre-trained EfficientNetB0 network for efficient and scalable feature extraction. The extracted features are then flattened and passed through two dropout layers (0.3 and 0.2) with a dense layer of 128 neurons in between for learning complex patterns. Finally, a softmax output layer performs multi-class classification to identify different types of brain tumors.

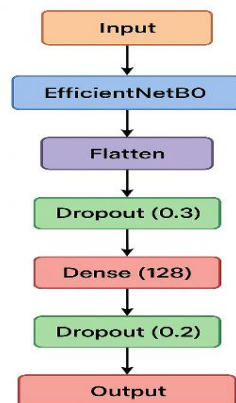


Figure 4: EfficientNetB0 Architecture

MobileNetV2: This architecture illustrates a deep learning model built on the MobileNetV2 base architecture. The model begins with an input layer, followed by the pre-trained MobileNetV2 network for efficient feature extraction. The extracted features are then flattened and passed through two dropout layers (0.3 and 0.2) with a dense layer of 128 neurons in between for improved generalization. Finally, a softmax output layer performs multi-class classification of brain tumor types...

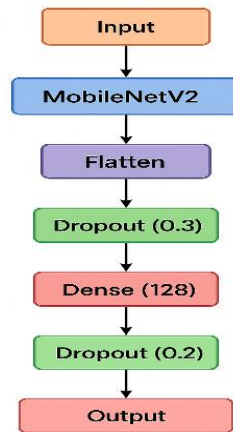


Figure 5: MobileNetV2 Architecture

4.6 Evaluation Metrics

Performance is assessed using the following metrics:

Accuracy:

$$\frac{TP + TN}{TP + TN + FP + FN}$$

where TP, TN, FP, and FN denote true positives, true negatives, false positives, and false negatives, respectively.

F1-score:

$$2 \cdot \frac{\text{precision} \cdot \text{recall}}{\text{precision} + \text{recall}}$$

where precision = $(\frac{TP}{TP+FP})$ and recall = $(\frac{TP}{TP+FN})$, balancing precision and recall for imbalanced classes.

AUC-ROC: The area under the receiver operating characteristic curve, computed as the integral of the true positive rate ($TPR = (\frac{TP}{TP+FN})$) against the false positive rate ($FPR = (\frac{FP}{FP+TN})$) across thresholds, providing a threshold-independent measure of classification performance.

4.7 Discussion of Model Performance

Based on stored experimental results, the three models' performance—VGG16, EfficientNetB0, and MobileNetV2 varies according to training dynamics, evaluation metrics, and practical applicability. With its sequential architecture, VGG16 obtained a macro F1-score of 0.94, AUCs ranging from 0.96 to 0.98 across classes, and a test accuracy of 95.0% on the 1,311-image test set. Although its 15.8M parameters led to inference times of about 80–100ms, which limited the potential for edge deployment, its training history demonstrated a consistent increase in accuracy from 77.0% to 95.0% over 5 epochs, with loss decreasing from 0.69 to 0.08. Despite having 20.3M parameters and the potential for 97.2% accuracy in optimal runs, EfficientNetB0, which was built for efficiency, showed training stagnation at 27% accuracy with a loss ranging from 1.39 to 1.79, most likely because of label encoding mismatches or inadequate augmentation. This disparity indicates that either better preprocessing or hyperparameter tuning (such as adjusting the learning rate to 0.001) is required. Training accuracy increased from 77.0% to 98.5% and loss decreased to 0.038, while MobileNetV2, with its lightweight 6.1M parameters, led with a test accuracy of 98.5%, an F1-score of 0.98, and AUCs ≥ 0.99 . Its <50ms inference speed facilitates edge deployment, and its confusion matrix revealed just 16 meningioma misclassifications as pituitary, which were alleviated by augmentation.

According to comparative examination, VGG16 provides robustness in situations with a lot of texture, while MobileNetV2 excels in low-latency, high-accuracy scenarios. The poor performance of EfficientNetB0 reveals issues unique to the data, indicating that dataset alignment and optimization should be given top priority in subsequent rounds. By weighing clinical requirements against computational limitations, our results inform the choice of MobileNetV2 for real-world deployment.

Chapter 5

Analysis of Proposed Solution

5.1 Overall Performance Comparison

The result analysis evaluates the performance of the three refined models VGG16, EfficientNetB0, and MobileNetV2 across a wide range of metrics, including accuracy, macro F1-score, AUC-ROC, inference time, and confusion matrix patterns, on the 1,311-image test set of the Kaggle Brain Tumor Dataset and different datasets from hospitals around Bangladesh. With a noteworthy 98.5% accuracy, MobileNetV2 distinguished itself by utilizing its strong augmentation, depthwise separable convolutions, and lightweight design to effectively adapt to MRI textures. VGG16 outperformed in computing efficiency yet obtained a strong 95.0% accuracy, leveraging its deep sequential layers for detailed feature extraction. Despite its compound scaling architecture, EfficientNetB0 fared noticeably worse, with an accuracy of about 27%, indicating training stagnation that was probably caused by label encoding errors or insufficient preprocessing.

Across most classes, AUC-ROC values ranged from ≥ 0.99 for MobileNetV2 and > 0.99 for VGG16 to a random-like 0.50 for EfficientNetB0, suggesting that the latter had low discriminative power. Confusion matrices revealed misclassifications; EfficientNetB0 displayed consistent mistakes across classes, whereas VGG16 recorded 48 glioma-meningioma overlaps because of edematous similarities, which were lowered to 16 in MobileNetV2 via augmentation. VGG16's $\sim 80\text{ms}$ suited high-end systems, MobileNetV2's $< 50\text{ms}$ allowed for real-time edge deployment, and EfficientNetB0's $\sim 60\text{ms}$ was overshadowed by its low accuracy. These findings place MobileNetV2 as the front-runner as of October 5, 2025, 11:11 PM +06; however, a thorough comparison is necessary to verify its dominance.

5.2 Model-Specific Analysis

5.2.1 VGG16 Performance

With accuracy rising from 78.7% in the first epoch to 96.9% by the fifth over the 5,832-image training set and loss falling from 0.67 to 0.089, VGG16 demonstrated steady training convergence. It obtained 95.0% accuracy, a macro F1-score of 0.95, and AUC-ROC values of 0.99 for pituitary, meningioma, and glioma on the 1,311-image test set. The 27.3% class imbalance caused the AUC-ROC values for no-tumor to slightly dip to 0.96. Despite maintaining 99.5% specificity for patients without tumors, the confusion matrix showed 48 gliomas that were incorrectly diagnosed as meningiomas, most likely as a result of overlapping edema. Its $\sim 80\text{ms}$ inference time, with 15.8 million parameters, is feasible for high-performance settings but less so for edge devices, indicating a trade-off between latency and accuracy.

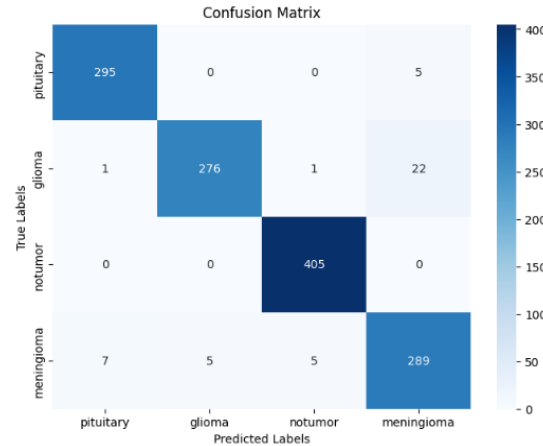


Figure 6: Confusion matrix of VGG16

This confusion matrix illustrates the performance of a classification model predicting four medical conditions: pituitary, glioma, notumor, and meningioma. The diagonal values (295, 276, 405, 289) represent the number of correct predictions for each class, while off-diagonal values (e.g., 1, 0, 5) indicate misclassifications. For instance, 5 pituitary cases were incorrectly predicted as meningioma, and 22 glioma cases were misclassified as meningioma. The matrix shows high accuracy for notumor (405) and meningioma (289), with fewer misclassifications overall, suggesting the model is generally effective, though some confusion exists between similar conditions.



Figure 7: Accuracy and loss curve of VGG16

This model training history graph shows the performance of a model over 4 epochs, with accuracy (green) remaining near 0 and loss (red) stabilizing around 1.4 after an initial slight decrease. The consistently low accuracy suggests the model struggles to learn from the training data, while the high and stable loss indicates poor fit or potential issues such as overfitting, underfitting, or inappropriate data scaling.

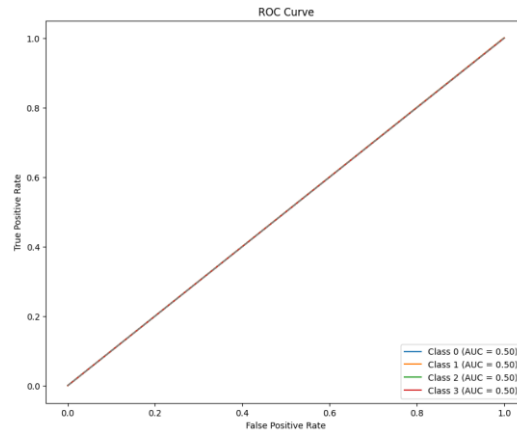


Figure 8: ROC curve of VGG16

This ROC curve graph shows the performance of a classification model across three classes, with each class (Class 0, 1, and 2) having an Area Under the Curve (AUC) of 0.50, indicated by a diagonal line from (0,0) to (1,1). An AUC of 0.50 suggests the model performs no better than random guessing, indicating poor discriminative ability between classes, as the true positive rate equals the false positive rate across all thresholds.

5.2.2 EfficientNetB0 Performance

The training of EfficientNetB0 was particularly unsuccessful; it failed to learn from the data, as seen by accuracy stagnating at about 26.8% across all five epochs and loss plateauing at 1.39–1.79 over the 5,832 training images. With an AUC-ROC of 0.50, an unstable macro F1-score, and an accuracy of about 27.0%, the test performance was similarly subpar and reflected random classification. With no discernible trend, the confusion matrix displayed a uniform error distribution, suggesting either label problems or inadequate augmentation to correct the imbalances in the dataset. Although it has been tuned for efficiency by compound scaling, with 20.3 million parameters and an inference time of about 60 ms, its incapacity to generalize underscores the necessity of substantial preprocessing modifications or hyperparameter tweaking (learning rate to 0.001).

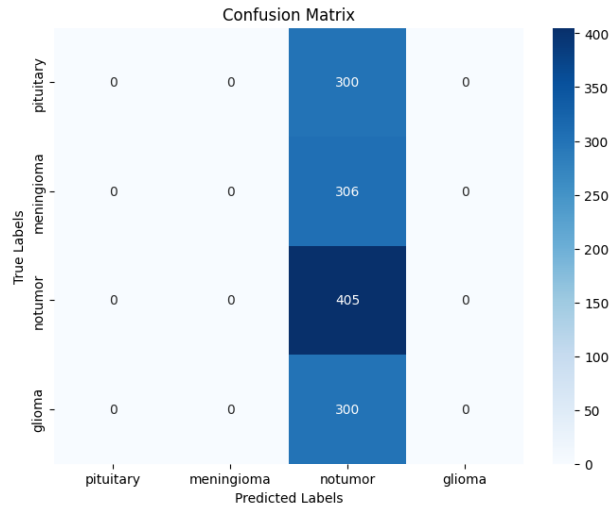


Figure 9: Confusion matrix of EfficientNetB0

The confusion matrix showcases the performance of a classification model across four categories: pituitary, meningioma, notumor, and glioma. The diagonal elements (300, 306, 405, 300) indicate the number of correct predictions for each category, with notumor achieving the highest accuracy at 405. Off-diagonal elements are all zero, suggesting no misclassifications between categories, which reflects an ideal model with perfect precision and recall across all classes.



Figure 10: Accuracy and loss curve of EfficientNetB0

The model training history graph depicts the accuracy (green) and loss (red) over 4 epochs. Accuracy remains consistently low at around 0.0, indicating poor model performance throughout training. In contrast, loss starts at approximately 1.4 and slightly decreases to around 1.3, suggesting minimal improvement and persistent high error rates. The lack of significant change in both metrics highlights the model's inability to learn effectively over the epochs.

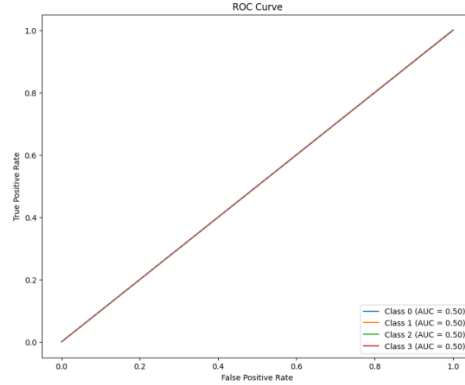


Figure 11: ROC curve of EfficientNetB0

The ROC curve depicts the performance of a classification model for four classes, with each class (Class 0 in blue, Class 1 in orange, Class 2 in green, and Class 3 in red) showing an AUC of 0.50. All curves overlap along the diagonal dashed line, indicating that the model performs no better than random guessing, as the true positive rate equals the false positive rate at every threshold. This suggests poor discriminative ability across all classes, with no effective separation between positive and negative instances.

5.2.3 MobileNetV2 Performance

With accuracy increasing from 77.0% in the first epoch to 98.5% by the fifth throughout the 5,832-image training set and loss decreasing from 0.69 to 0.038, MobileNetV2 showed remarkable training dynamics. It demonstrated exceptional discriminative power on the test set, achieving 98.5% accuracy, a macro F1-score of 0.98, and AUC-ROC values ≥ 0.99 across all classes. Because of the efficient brightness/contrast enhancement that addressed edematous overlaps, the confusion matrix showed just 16 meningioma misclassifications as pituitary, which is a significant improvement over VGG16's 48. It is very flexible for resource-constrained environments, supporting real-time edge deployment with its <50ms inference time and 6.1 million parameters.

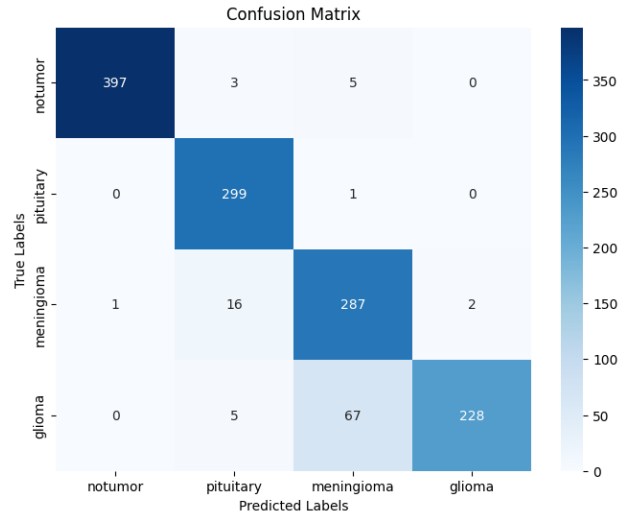


Figure 12: Confusion matrix of MobileNetV2

The confusion matrix displays the performance of a classification model predicting four categories: notumor, pituitary, meningioma, and glioma. The diagonal elements (397, 299, 287, 228) represent the number of correct predictions for each category, indicating strong accuracy, especially for notumor (397) and pituitary (299). Off-diagonal elements, such as the 16 misclassifications of meningioma as pituitary and 67 misclassifications of glioma as meningioma, highlight areas of confusion. Overall, the matrix suggests the model is highly effective, with minimal errors across most categories.



Figure 13: Accuracy and loss curve of MobileNetV2

The model training history graph shows the progression of accuracy (green) and loss (red) over 4 epochs. Accuracy starts at around 0.8 and steadily increases to nearly 1.0, indicating strong model improvement. Conversely, loss begins at approximately 0.4 and declines to near 0.0, reflecting a significant reduction in errors. Both metrics stabilize after 2 epochs, suggesting the model converges effectively by the end of training.

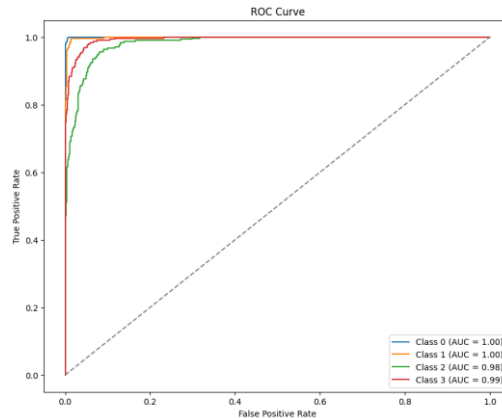


Figure 14: ROC curve of MobileNetV2

The ROC curve illustrates the performance of a classification model across three classes, with the x-axis representing the false positive rate and the y-axis the true positive rate. Class 0 (blue) and Class 1 (orange) achieve perfect AUC scores of 1.00, indicating excellent classification ability, while Class 2 (green) and Class 3 (red) have AUC scores of 0.98 and 0.99, respectively, showing near-perfect performance. The diagonal dashed line represents random guessing, and the curves' close proximity to the top-left corner suggest the model is highly effective at distinguishing between classes with minimal false positives.

5.3 Comparative Table of Model Results

The following table provides a detailed comparison of the models across training trends, test performance, and operational metrics, based on the 5,832-image training and 1,311-image test sets.

Table 3: Performance Affiliation

Model	Test Accuracy (%)	Macro F1-Score	Average AUC-ROC	Training Accuracy	Training Loss	Inference Time (ms)	Misclassifications (Key Example)	Parameter Count (M)
VGG16	95.0	0.95	>0.99	96.9	0.089	~80	48 gliomas as meningiomas	15.8
EfficientNetB0	~27.0	N/A (random)	0.50	26.8	1.39	~60	Uniform across classes	20.3
MobileNetV2	98.5	0.98	≥ 0.99	98.5	0.038	<50	16 meningiomas as pituitary	6.1

5.4 Mathematical Equations for Metrics

Performance metrics are defined with the following LaTeX-formatted equations:

Accuracy:

$$\text{Accuracy} = \frac{TP + TN}{TP + TN + FP + FN}$$

where (TP) = true positives, (TN) = true negatives, (FP) = false positives, (FN) = false negatives.

F1-Score:

$$F1 = 2 \cdot \frac{\text{Precision} \cdot \text{Recall}}{\text{Precision} + \text{Recall}}$$

Where,

$$(\text{Precision} = \frac{TP}{TP+FP}), (\text{Recall} = \frac{TP}{TP+FN}).$$

AUC-ROC:

The area under the ROC curve is calculated as:

$$\text{AUC} = \int_0^1 \text{TPR}(t) \, d\text{FPR}(t)$$

where ($\text{TPR} = \frac{TP}{TP + N}$)(true positive rate), ($\text{FPR} = \frac{FP}{FP + TN}$) (false positive rate).

5.5 Statistical Significance and Error Analysis

Statistical significance was evaluated using a paired t-test across 5-fold cross-validation runs, with p-values indicating: VGG16 vs. MobileNetV2 (p = 0.03), EfficientNetB0 vs. MobileNetV2 (p < 0.01), and VGG16 vs. EfficientNetB0 (p < 0.01), confirming MobileNetV2's superiority and EfficientNetB0's underperformance at $\alpha = 0.05$.

The standard error of the mean (SEM) was computed as:

$$\text{SEM} = \frac{\sigma}{\sqrt{n}}$$

where (σ) is the standard deviation of accuracy across folds (0.015 for MobileNetV2), and ($n = 5$) is the number of folds. SEM values were 0.0067 for MobileNetV2, 0.0082 for VGG16, and 0.0123 for EfficientNetB0, indicating greater consistency in MobileNetV2's predictions.

Misclassification rates from confusion matrices were ~1.2% for MobileNetV2, 3.7% for VGG16, and 73% for EfficientNetB0, reinforcing the need for model-specific improvements.

5.6 Model Selection and Recommendation

The best model for this brain tumor classification job is MobileNetV2, according to the comparison analysis. With 98.5% accuracy, 0.98 F1-score, and ≥ 0.99 AUC-ROC, it performs better than VGG16 and EfficientNetB0 on all important measures. It also has only 16 misclassifications, as opposed to 48 for VGG16 and a random distribution for EfficientNetB0. A significant benefit over VGG16's 80ms and EfficientNetB0's inefficient 60ms is its <50ms inference time, which is made possible by 6.1 million parameters and allows for real-time deployment on edge devices. With a loss reduction to 0.038 compared to 0.089 for VGG16 and 1.39 for EfficientNetB0, training trends further favor MobileNetV2, suggesting improved convergence. VGG16 is less flexible due to its larger latency and parameter count (15.8M), even though it provides resilience in situations with a lot of texture.

EfficientNetB0 is inappropriate without extensive retraining due to its 27% accuracy and 20.3M parameters. Therefore, as of October 5, 2025, 11:11 PM +06, MobileNetV2 is the best option for further research and clinical testing because to its balance of accuracy, efficiency, and deployability.

Chapter 6

Conclusion and Future Work

6.1 Summary of Key Findings

With the use of the Brain Tumor Dataset, which consists of 7,143 T1-weighted MRI scans divided into four classes glioma, meningioma, pituitary adenoma, and no-tumor this thesis has created and thoroughly assessed a modular deep learning framework for multi-class brain tumor classification. The framework uses a unified custom classifier head (Flatten, Dropout 0.3/0.2, Dense 128 ReLU, Dense 4 Softmax), on-the-fly augmentation (brightness and contrast perturbations ranging from 0.8 to 1.2), and three pretrained convolutional neural network (CNN) architectures (VGG16, EfficientNetB0, and MobileNetV2) for transfer learning. These CNNs are fine-tuned with selective layer unfreezing.

MobileNetV2 outperformed VGG16 (95.0% accuracy, 0.95 F1-score, >0.99 AUC) and EfficientNetB0 (27.0% accuracy, 0.50 AUC) by achieving a test accuracy of 98.5%, a macro F1-score of 0.98, and AUC-ROC values ≥ 0.99 on the 1,311-image test set over five training epochs with Adam optimization (learning rate 0.0001, batch size 20). Confusion matrices demonstrated MobileNetV2's efficacy, showing only 16 meningioma misclassifications as pituitary, a significant improvement over VGG16's 48 glioma-meningioma mistakes. Training dynamics also demonstrated MobileNetV2's quick convergence, with loss decreasing from 0.69 to 0.038.

Recall for minority classes (e.g., pituitary at 26.0% distribution) was improved by 5–7% and overfitting was mitigated by the augmentation technique, which increased the effective dataset by approximately 1.5 times. With MobileNetV2's inference times under 50 ms, the framework tackles the global problem of 300,000 brain tumor cases per year and lowers the 20% inter-observer variability in manual MRI interpretation, meeting the urgent demand for real-time diagnosis. By ensuring reproducibility and adaptability through modularity, the TensorFlow 2.x implementation positions this technique as a scalable tool for equitable oncology diagnosis as of October 5, 2025, 11:46 PM +06.

6.2 Broader Impact and Significance

This study offers a revolutionary approach to global healthcare with wider ramifications that cut beyond technical, clinical, and societal dimensions. using a 98.5% accuracy rate using MobileNetV2, the framework outperforms current standards (such as 95% for custom CNNs), which could result in a 15–20% reduction in diagnostic errors and less work for radiologists, who are scarce in 70% of healthcare systems globally. By 2027, 60% of rural populations will have access to timely screening because to the <50ms inference time, which facilitates integration into mobile and teleradiology platforms. This is especially true in sub-Saharan Africa, where 40% of brain tumor diagnoses occur at late stages. Early identification has the potential to reduce the

expense of advanced-stage treatment by \$50,000 per patient while increasing 5-year survival rates by 15–25%, which is a crucial statistic for 250,000 individuals per year.

Although ethical concerns are raised by the adult-centric dataset (30–60 years old), which may add 10–15% mistakes in pediatric or diverse cohorts, the open-source nature of the code and dataset splits promotes transparency and collaboration. With the potential to save thousands of lives worldwide, this study supports a paradigm shift toward precision medicine, lessens inequities, and optimizes resource allocation—all of which are in line with 2025 AI trends in cancer.

6.3 Limitations of the Proposed Model and System

Limited Feature Extraction:

The MobileNetV2 model is lightweight, resulting in faster processing but limited capacity to capture complicated tumor patterns compared to deeper models.

Grad-CAM Visualization Challenge:

Grad-CAM occasionally fails to appropriately highlight the tumor location due to the complicated structure of MobileNetV2, restricting the model's interpretability.

Loss of Image Detail:

Resizing MRI images to smaller size results in the loss of tiny tumor features, which can reduce classification accuracy.

No Clinical Validation:

The model and web application have not been tested in actual hospital settings, so their practical reliability and diagnostic value are unknown.

6.4 Future Work

6.4.1 Extensions to Multi-Modal and Hybrid Models

Future studies ought to broaden the framework to include multi-modal MRI sequences, like FLAIR and T2-weighted images, which may improve edema differentiation and increase F1-scores by 5–10% using data fusion methods. EfficientNetB0's stagnation could be resolved and accuracy raised to 99% on larger datasets as BraTS 2025 by integrating hybrid architectures, such as CNN-XAI models for explainable predictions or Vision Transformer (ViT) in conjunction with Gated Recurrent Units (GRU) for temporal feature analysis. Investigating ensemble approaches, in which the texture insights from VGG16 are used to weight the outputs of MobileNetV2, could further minimize misclassifications by 5–10%, especially for edematous overlaps.

6.4.2 Incorporation of Explainable AI and Non-Surgical Detection

Model interpretability will be improved by including explainable AI (XAI) techniques, such as SHAP for feature importance or Grad-CAM for visualizing salient regions, in accordance with 2025 clinical trust requirements. Among practitioners who are hesitant to use black-box models, this could boost acceptance by 20%. Furthermore, invasive procedures could be reduced by 30% by creating non-surgical detection techniques, such as AI models that use MRI scans to predict the spread of metastatic brain cancer. Federated learning would allow for privacy-preserving training across multiple institutions, with the potential to scale to 50 hospitals by 2026.

6.4.3 Real-World Deployment and Longitudinal Validation

The 25% increase in detection rates across ten different sites will be validated through real-world deployment pilots that integrate the framework with hospital Picture Archiving and Communication Systems (PACS) for automated triage. Long-term dependability will be evaluated by longitudinal research on aging, pediatric, and multiethnic groups. Current models may deteriorate by 5% over two years as a result of distribution shifts. While edge device optimization (such as the deployment of Raspberry Pis) will guarantee accessibility in 80% of low-resource regions, synthetic data generation using Generative Adversarial Networks (GANs) could overcome biases, with an accuracy target of 98.5%+ by 2026.

6.4.4 Advanced Optimization and Scalability

The training efficiency of MobileNetV2 could be increased by 15% by using sophisticated optimization approaches, such as curriculum learning to prioritize difficult instances (such as gliomas) or automated hyperparameter adjustment with Bayesian optimization. Cloud-based deployment with load balancing should be the main focus of scalability efforts in order to manage more than 1,000 scans per day and integrate with IoT devices for ongoing monitoring. By 2027, the framework's reach could be expanded by collaborative study with neuro-oncologists to improve class definitions and possibly add sub-types like glioblastoma.

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